

Reassessing Residential Preferences for Redevelopment

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While scholars argue that redevelopment and gentrification result in large part from the unique preferences of middle-class residents moving to neighborhoods after decades of flight, almost all of this evidence is extrapolated from the behavior of residents already living in redeveloped neighborhoods. I argue that understanding the consequences of redevelopment, particularly urban policies advocating redevelopment, requires measuring the preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods among the broader metropolitan population. Using data from a representative sample of Chicago metropolitan area adults, I find that homeowners and renters differ in their patterns of preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods: city or suburban residence is more important for homeowners while race is a much stronger factor among renters. This reassessment of preference patterns highlights the potential for redevelopment policies to fall short of intended goals to attract investment and alleviate racial segregation.

INTRODUCTION

Many American cities have been transformed by gentrification and redevelopment in recent decades (Smith 1996; Wyly and Hammel 1999). While a constellation of economic, political, and cultural factors has contributed to the creation and expansion of urban redevelopment, part of the expansion is due to the growth in demand for redeveloped neighborhoods and urban lifestyles and the growth in demand suggests that traditional theories of middle-class suburban preferences and urban flight should be reconsidered (Hamnett 1991). Urban neighborhoods that were thought to be an anathema to the middle-class—particularly the white middle-class—have become popular residential destinations for many middle-income professionals. Observing the increasing number of middle-income professionals in urban neighborhoods, several scholars have theorized that the redevelopment of urban neighborhoods indicates the emergence of a new class that can be defined by their distinct preferences for the amenities provided by an urban lifestyle. These amenities include proximity to cultural institutions, restaurants, and a diverse residential environment (Bridge 2001; Florida 2002; Ley 1996) and some have

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argued that policies to “revitalize” cities should focus on attracting this emergent class of professionals with these amenities (Florida 2002).

In their work, these demand-side theorists have tended to **accentuate the uniqueness of gentrifiers’ residential preferences compared to other metropolitan residents**. From this perspective, **the preferences for urban neighborhoods distinguish an emergent cultural class from the more traditional middle-class** that seeks out suburban refuge and the lower- and working-classes living in central city neighborhoods (Bridge 2001; Hamnett 1991; Jager 1986). **Yet, despite arguing that the rise and expansion of urban redevelopment are largely based on the *unique* preferences of this emerging class, researchers have almost exclusively focused on the preferences of middle-class residents living in redeveloping neighborhoods and neglected the preferences and perspectives of other residents (Bridge 2006; Slater 2006). Overlooking the residential preferences of other groups makes it impossible to ascertain the uniqueness of the residential preferences of middle-class gentrifiers. One cannot assess the uniqueness of middle-class preferences without comparing them to the preferences of others who might want to live in a redeveloped neighborhood, but for one reason or another are unable to do so.**

Additionally, while redevelopment is often promoted by individual gentrifiers and for proponents of redevelopment policies as a way to create more diverse neighborhoods (Brown-Saracino 2004; Florida 2002), focusing exclusively on **the preferences of middle-class, predominantly white, professional residents** could miss important dimensions along which preferences are formed. Not accounting for these dimensions could have serious implications for the potential inclusiveness of redeveloped communities. **What is perhaps most troubling in the American context is that the topic of race and its influence on the development of preferences is hardly broached (Lees 2000).** Given both the historical impact of race on the development of segregated metropolitan residential patterns that unevenly distribute the risks and benefits of redevelopment (Massey and Denton 1993), and the continuing influence of race on residential preferences and mobility decisions (Crowder 2001; Emerson, Chai, and Yancey 2001; Farley et al. 1978, 1993), this a key oversight.

In this paper, I argue that the broad implications of redevelopment, including anticipating whether redevelopment will be successful in creating inclusive urban neighborhoods, can only be understood by examining how a complete array of social and economic factors influence who would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood. To do so, I use the responses from a representative sample of residents drawn from the population of Cook County, Illinois (the county containing Chicago and its surrounding suburbs), and investigate who would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood in the city of Chicago. Using the responses from this representative sample of metropolitan residents allows me to explore the social and economic characteristics of residents who would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood from a much broader perspective than has been accomplished in previous studies. **This breadth includes urban and suburban residents; blacks, whites, and Latinos; homeowners and renters; and residents with a diversity of economic and educational backgrounds.** Based on the responses of this diverse population, **I find that patterns of preferences are substantially different for homeowners and renters—the former being more influenced by their current location and the latter by their racial or ethnic identity.** Yet, even where groups were equally likely to consider redeveloped neighborhoods, the reasons for doing so are often different.

POLITICAL ECONOMIC CONTEXT OF AMERICAN URBAN REDEVELOPMENT

The groundwork of contemporary redevelopment was established in the years following World War II. Federal policies favored suburban expansion over urban development through new home construction and homeownership opportunities in the suburban rings that were closed to racial minorities (Jackson 1985; Massey and Denton 1993). To make matters worse for racial minorities, the government programs that did support urban housing tended to reinforce racial segregation (Hirsch 1983). These policies facilitated the departure of middle-class residents from central city neighborhoods and, combined with the continuing distaste among whites to live with racial minorities, led to racially divided metropolitan areas (Farley et al. 1978, 1993). Thus, the combination of suburbanization and the legacy of discriminatory housing policies meant that the consequences of economic restructuring were disproportionately borne by the poor and minority residents who were spatially concentrated in central city neighborhoods with poor services, inadequate housing, and few jobs (Massey and Denton 1993; Wilson 1987, 1996).

Yet, after decades of flight from urban neighborhoods, the number of middle-class residents began to slowly increase in some neighborhoods as early as the 1960s and, in some cases, pushed out existing tenants (Smith 1996; Zukin 1982). As she watched a similar economic transformation unfold in London, Ruth Glass (1964) coined the term “gentrification” to describe the process of working-class Londoners being displaced by a new “gentry” of middle-class professionals. Many of the factors that have been identified in the redevelopment and gentrification of cities are structural and created supply-side incentives for redevelopment. These include the devaluation of urban land caused by the previous flight of residents and industry (Smith 1996), the movement toward private intervention in housing and urban policies (Ahlbrandt 1984; Harvey 2001; Weber 2002), and the positioning of certain cities as financial and service control centers of an increasingly global economic finance and distribution system (Sassen 2000). However, while these factors might have increased financial incentives and channeled investment to central cities, without a demand-side inclination on the part of residents to move to urban neighborhoods, redevelopment would not have been sustainable nor would redevelopment have had the impact that it has on many American central cities.

PREFERENCES FOR REDEVELOPED NEIGHBORHOODS

MIDDLE-CLASS PREFERENCES FOR REDEVELOPED NEIGHBORHOODS

Presumably because the growth of the middle-class in urban neighborhoods was an unexpected reversal of middle-class suburban expansion, **researchers have been interested in the social and economic characteristics and residential preferences of the middle-class residents who were moving to urban neighborhoods (Hamnett 1991)**. In his pioneering work on the growth of gentrification, David Ley (1996) used census data from 1971 to 1991 in Canadian cities and found that a number of demographic characteristics were evident among the residents of gentrifying neighborhoods that distinguished them from other urban and suburban areas. **He found that gentrification was likely to happen in**

locations near amenities like parks and waterfronts; where residents had higher socioeconomic status and high levels of employment in the public and nonprofit sectors; where a large number of artists and a large proportion of unmarried residents lived (see also Meligrana and Skaburskis 2005, for similar findings in later decades). Studies from the United States revealed that similar characteristics could be used to identify gentrifying neighborhoods and additionally found that educational attainment (Wyly and Hammel 1999) and racial composition (Nelson 1988; Wyly and Hammel 1999, 2004) predict gentrification. Based on these patterns and evidence from political movements adopting a new “livable” vision of the diverse city, defined in opposition to policies justified by the economic efficiency of growth, Ley (1980, 1996) highlights how the growth of redevelopment in urban neighborhoods is connected to the “new middle-class” affinities for urban lifestyles and the social and political movements of the 1960s that rejected the ideas of traditional middle-class suburban existence.

Building on the findings of these ecological analyses, an expanding literature of qualitative studies located in gentrifying neighborhoods have noted the role that residential preferences play as a visible marker of taste and related these ideas to Bourdieu’s (1984) notion of distinction. These studies argue that residential preferences are formed in a contested field of cultural production where residents prefer an urban lifestyle and move to redeveloped neighborhoods in order to culturally distinguish themselves from those whose preferences led them to the bland and mass-produced suburbs (Bridge 2001; Ley 1996). Supporting this line of reasoning, several scholars note the role of cultural elites and artists in defining this cultural field of residential preferences by forming the vanguard of redevelopment (Ley 2003; Lloyd 2002; Zukin 1982). Often led by artists and cultural taste-makers, redeveloped neighborhoods see an influx of professionals for whom technological advances in communication and transportation have made the location of residence less dependent on the location of employment (Butler 2007). The tendency of these mobile professionals to live with neighbors who have similar consumption patterns, educational attainment, and occupation has been attributed to the unique preferences among mobile professionals (Butler and Robson 2001; Florida 2002; Webber 2007).

The renewed interest among the middle-class for urban neighborhoods precipitated a move among politicians and policy-makers to advocate for policies in a number of ways. First, policy-makers focus on attracting professionals to live in central-city neighborhoods to justify policies such as tax increment financing and empowerment zones in the pursuit of this goal (Oakley and Tsao 2006; Weber 2002). Second, others justify redevelopment policies (e.g., HOPE VI) as a method to promote socioeconomically diverse communities since extensive evidence establishes the deleterious consequences of living in areas with a high concentration of poverty (Sampson, Morenoff, and Gannon-Rowley 2002; Wilson 1987).

Yet, the problem with understanding redevelopment as the unique expression of taste by professionals who move into redeveloping neighborhoods—and basing policies on this understanding—is that their residence in redeveloping neighborhoods expresses more than just the preferences of the residents. Residing in redeveloped neighborhoods also represents the ability of those residents to afford those particular types of neighborhoods and to be free from geographic constraints of employment. This is not to say that the substantial spatial clustering of people based on consumption patterns, educational attainment, and professional occupation is not an important trend shaping political economic realities in cities; it certainly is. However, investigating these trends

provides an incomplete picture of the extent to which *preferences*, and especially the uniqueness of these preferences, are implicated in shaping the residential patterns in urban neighborhoods.

GENTRIFICATION'S "OTHERS"

Despite calls to examine the preferences and effects of other residents, **the preferences of the (usually white) middle-class gentrifiers have received disproportionate attention (Lees 2000; Slater, Curran, and Lees 2004).** Bridge (2001) argues that the process of cultural distinction represented by the gentrification of urban neighborhoods requires that residents both act on their own preferences and account for the complex social calculus to anticipate the preferences of others. Yet, not measuring the preferences of the working-class and non-white residents has resulted in nongentrifying residents becoming an "other" of gentrification" and has led to the assumption that these residents automatically oppose redevelopment (Bridge, 2001:215). While some studies have begun to examine the preferences of gentrification's "others," particularly lower- or working-class residents and African Americans, they have only indirectly captured the preferences of these groups and provided insufficient evidence to determine the uniqueness of middle-class preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods.

Lower- and Working-Class Preferences for Redevelopment

While the terms "lower-" and "working-"class are somewhat ambiguous and open to interpretation, I simply mean residents with fewer resources than the middle-class residents who are typically understood to drive redevelopment. There is scant evidence regarding the preferences for redevelopment among this group of residents. Typically, those studies that do exist use macro-level analyses of administrative data and determine that incumbent residents, particularly nonelderly residents, are willing to pay a premium for housing in order to remain in their current dwelling instead of moving to a nongentrifying area (Freeman and Braconi 2004; Vigdor 2002). In a subsequent qualitative study further investigating the effect of redevelopment on current residents, **Freeman (2006) finds that incumbent residents in gentrifying neighborhoods welcome the commercial investment and improved services, but worry that they will be priced out of their neighborhoods.** This also points to the fact that homeowners and renters are affected by redevelopment differently. Homeowners can reap a substantial financial investment from the appreciation in housing values while that same appreciation represents an increase in housing costs for renters. Additionally, because of the substantial reserved wealth required to obtain a mortgage to purchase one's house, homeownership also represents a socioeconomic class division. However, since these studies only investigate the reactions of residents who live in neighborhoods that are redeveloping around them, they are silent on the preferences of lower- and working-class residents and renters who do not live in redeveloping neighborhoods.

African-American Preferences for Redevelopment

Measuring African-American preferences is particularly important in the context of redevelopment for two reasons. First, inferring residential preferences based on where one currently lives is particularly problematic for blacks. **This is because African Americans**

have more difficulty converting their mobility preferences into actual moves independent of their socioeconomic position, both generally and specifically in redeveloping neighborhoods (Crowder 2001; Wyly and Hammel 2004). Second, intraracial class differences among blacks have tended to be glossed over as researchers have focused on comparisons between blacks and whites. Blacks are often assumed to have similar preferences regardless of class and those preferences are defined in opposition to white preferences. This problem is not unique to investigations of gentrification and redevelopment (Patillo 2003); however, because the process of redevelopment is located at the intersection of race and class, this is a particularly problematic oversight when investigating issues surrounding redevelopment and gentrification.

Recent investigations have examined the role of African Americans in the process of gentrification. Studying community investment programs in Newark, New Jersey, Newman and Ashton (2004) found that middle-class African-American homeowners were the most likely to take advantage of the housing opportunities in redeveloped neighborhoods and Bostic and Martin (2003) showed that the black middle-class helped drive the first wave of gentrification in the 1970s. Others have highlighted the conflicting visions of neighborhood development in predominantly black neighborhoods, particularly between homeowners and renters (Jackson 2001; Patillo 2007). Again, these studies only examine neighborhoods that are already undergoing redevelopment and do not attempt to examine the degree to which race and class might influence whether residents would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood. And, despite the paucity of research on African-American preferences, these studies represent a relatively large body of work compared to the complete lack of research investigating Latino preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods.

ASSESSING REDEVELOPMENT PREFERENCES IN A METROPOLITAN CONTEXT

Developing a comprehensive picture of the potential implications of redevelopment on metropolitan residential patterns requires refocusing our attention beyond what is occurring in redeveloping neighborhoods to the potential influence of redevelopment across the entire metropolitan context. Particularly, as policy-makers advocate urban redevelopment programs to attract investment from suburbs, increase urban tax bases, and alleviate problems of inequality created by racial and economic segregation, the potential costs and potential benefits must be empirically assessed. Only a narrow set of these costs and benefits can be assessed by focusing exclusively on what is occurring in redeveloping neighborhoods and both policy-makers and researchers risk incorrectly extrapolating from what *has* occurred rather than from what *has the potential* to occur by encouraging redevelopment.

This problem suggests that urban researchers should investigate the preferences for redevelopment among a broad spectrum of metropolitan residents. For example, based on the evidence gathered about gentrification's "others"—lower-income families and racial minorities—there is reason to believe that the preferences to live in a redeveloped neighborhood are not unique to residents fitting the stereotypical profile of the white, middle-class professional. Instead, evidence suggests that lower-income residents and racial minorities would consider moving to those neighborhoods, but are unable

to afford to do so; however, researchers infer this conclusion based on evidence from incumbent residents' actions in redeveloping neighborhoods. Additionally, as I note above, research fails to account for wealth differences within racial and ethnic categories and instead assumes homogeneity of experiences for blacks and Latinos. Despite the claim that redevelopment will attract residential investment "back-to-the-city," no studies examine whether suburban homeowners would even consider moving to the city and the limited evidence that does exist—again based on inferences from residential patterns in redeveloped neighborhoods—indicates that they would not (Gale 1979; Smith 1996).

An alternative to extrapolating preferences from mobility patterns comes from research conducted on the role of race in the formation of residential preferences. Reynolds Farley and colleagues (1978, 1994), facing a similar problem of trying to determine the extent to which race influences mobility, devised a method of showing people cards containing stylized neighborhoods with different racial composition. This method and others derived from it help researchers investigate preferences even when people might not be able to attain their preferences due to discrimination, the unavailability of neighborhoods that match their true underlying preferences, or inability to afford another neighborhood. This study employs a similar method of asking respondents whether they would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood.

Critics of the method highlight potential problems including the fact that stating a preference on a survey is cost-free and that respondents use real-world anchors based on the examples shown (Harris 2001). The first suggests that, if pushed, respondents would not "put their money where their mouth is"; and the second implies that isolating an effect of the desired stimulus (e.g., race or redevelopment) is very difficult and researchers should be cautious interpreting the reasons for different levels of preference. While it is important to bear these criticisms in mind as limitations of the method, asking respondents for their stated preferences provides substantial benefits in being able to examine the preferences of those typically neglected in redevelopment research.

This study asks a representative sample of residents in the Chicago metropolitan area whether they would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood in the city of Chicago. This is, to the author's knowledge, the first study of responses regarding residential redevelopment preferences among a metropolitan population. In the following sections, I describe the study in more detail, explain the methods of analysis, and present the results of the analysis that suggest some reassessment of residential preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods is warranted. I conclude by discussing the implications of the results for policies regarding metropolitan patterns of redevelopment.

DATA AND METHODS

The data for this study come from the 2004 Chicago Area Study (CAS). The CAS is a multistage area probability sample surveying respondents 21 years and older living in Cook County, Illinois. The city of Chicago and many of its surrounding suburbs are located in Cook County and while many of Chicago's suburbs fall outside of Cook County, the suburbs that are inside of the county boundaries include a diverse array of communities typical of the Chicago suburbs. Computer-assisted personal interviews were conducted between August 2004 and August 2005. Respondents were sampled from 80 clusters, which were generally a single block group. Some clusters are defined across two different block

groups. In these cases, the characteristics of the block group in which the majority of respondents live are used for analysis. The overall response rate was 45 percent, resulting in 789 completed interviews (AAPOR 2008, RR2 standard).

DEPENDENT VARIABLE

The CAS devoted one module to **measuring respondents' perceptions of redeveloped neighborhoods and their willingness to consider living in one**. The interviewers introduced the module with the prompt, "In recent years, older places like Chicago have made efforts to redevelop the neighborhoods in their central cities. Think about what this brings to mind for you." Among the questions asked of respondents was, **"If you were thinking of buying or renting a new home, would you consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood in the city of Chicago?"** The dependent variable in this analysis is the answer to this question, affirmative answers were set equal to one and negative responses coded as zero.

Using this question requires being mindful of interpreting the results in two ways. First, redeveloped and redeveloping neighborhoods do not follow a single trajectory of change in Chicago and, thus, "redevelopment" might conjure different ideas for respondents. This redevelopment includes first-wave gentrification (e.g., West Loop), federally funded HOPE VI redevelopment of public housing (e.g., Cabrini Green and Robert Taylor Homes), city-driven redevelopment and beautification programs (e.g., Bridgeport), as well as contemporary gentrification in a number of neighborhoods (e.g., Wicker Park, Pilsen/Little Village, Bronzeville). To help orient readers unfamiliar with Chicago, Figure 1 maps the percent change (in constant dollars) of median gross rent from 1990 to 2000 in Chicago census tracts and plots the locations of the neighborhoods just cited. The variety of different types of redevelopment likely increases the likelihood that some form of redevelopment would appeal to respondents.

The second consideration is that the study uses the word "redevelop." The investigators chose the word "redevelop" conscious of the fact that the term avoids the politicization of alternatives such as "gentrify," which implies strong racial and class connotations, and "revitalize," which suggests that nonredeveloping neighborhoods lack vitality. In using the term "redevelop," I do not want to discount the politicized nature of the process thoroughly documented by others; however, using other terms could potentially conflate respondents' political sentiments with their residential preferences or limit the number of neighborhoods that would be brought to mind by the prompt. In sum, these two considerations likely increase the number of respondents who would consider a redeveloped neighborhood and, because of the variety of types of redevelopment, reduce demographic and socioeconomic characteristics that differentiate preferences among respondents.

INDEPENDENT VARIABLES

Race/Ethnicity and Socioeconomic Status

Race/ethnicity is constructed from self-reported measures of race and Hispanic ethnicity. Respondents were allowed to select more than one racial identity; however, few respondents used this option ($N = 6$). Respondents are coded into mutually exclusive

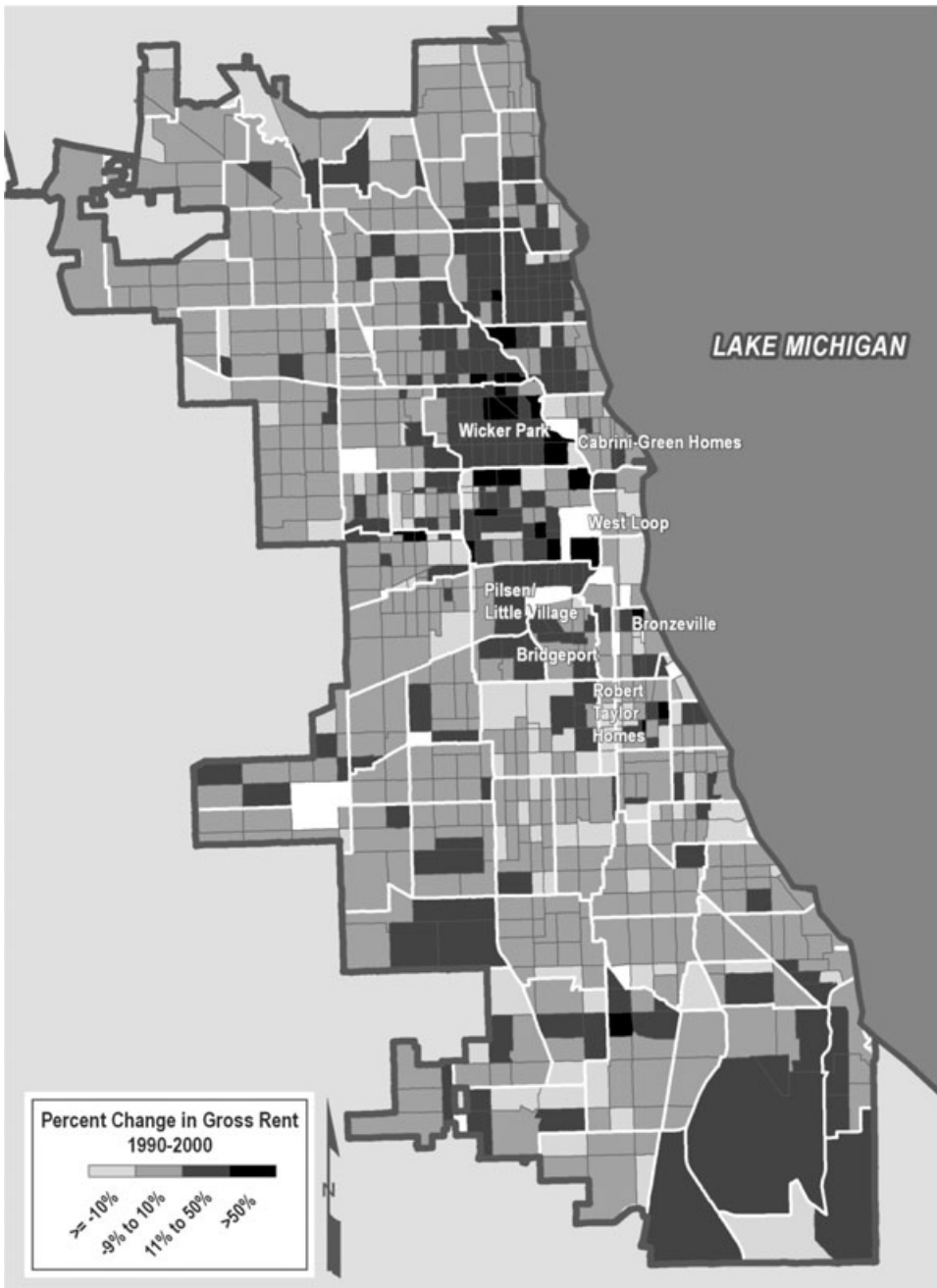


FIG. 1. Map of percent change (in constant dollars) of median gross rent in Chicago census tracts from 1990 to 2000 with selected communities labeled and community areas outlined in white.

categories: non-Hispanic black if they selected African American either alone or in combination with another race; non-Hispanic white if they selected white alone; and Latino if they indicated Hispanic ethnicity, regardless of race. Only respondents identifying as one of these three racial/ethnic categories are included in the analysis because there are an insufficient number of respondents in other racial categories to permit statistical comparisons. Socioeconomic status is measured in two ways: educational attainment and annual family income. Educational attainment tends to be a more stable indicator of class position across the life-course and has been one of the strongest predictors of gentrification (Wyly and Hammel 1999). Income, on the other hand, is more variable across the life-course and indicates the immediate financial resources available to the respondent, which could influence one's residential preferences. Educational attainment is classified into four categories: less than a high school diploma or general equivalency diploma (GED); those with a high school diploma or GED; those with some college, but less than a bachelor-level degree; and those with a bachelor-level degree or higher. Annual family income is also divided into four categories: less than \$20,000; \$20,000 to \$39,999; \$40,000 to \$79,999; and \$80,000 or more. Because there were substantial missing data on the income variable (10 percent), single imputation based on demographic and block-group variables was used via Stata's "impute" command (details available upon request). The highest category for both education and income are used as reference categories.

Residential Characteristics

In order to determine the possible influence of respondents' current housing situation on their willingness to consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood, I include measures of homeownership and years lived in the Chicago metropolitan area. Homeownership is measured as a dichotomous variable with homeowners being set equal to one and renters equal to zero. The years lived in the Chicago metropolitan area is a self-reported measure asking respondents how long they have lived in the metropolitan area and is coded to equal their age if they indicate they lived there for their whole lives.

Life-Course and Demographic Characteristics

To control for life-course characteristics, I include in the model whether the respondent is currently married (1 = yes) and whether the respondent has a child in school less than 18 years of age (1 = yes). No distinction is made whether the child is their own child. I also control for whether the respondent is female (1 = yes) as well as the respondent's age. Age is broken into two categories: respondents aged 21–40 years and respondents aged 41 years or more. The younger category is the reference category.

Current Neighborhood Characteristics

In order to measure and control for the effect that the resident's current neighborhood might have on her or his willingness to consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood, several variables measuring the characteristics of the respondent's current neighborhood, measured as the block group, were included. Most importantly, I measured whether the respondent lives in the city of Chicago. Block groups in the city of Chicago were set equal to one while suburban block groups were set equal to zero. I also control for the racial composition of the neighborhood by including the percent of the respondent's block group that is non-Hispanic black and the percent Hispanic. The socioeconomic position of the neighborhood was controlled by including the percent of the respondent's block

Table 1. Descriptive Statistics for Individual- and Neighborhood-Level Variables, Chicago Area Study

	Mean	SD
Individual variables ($N = 728$)		
<i>Race/Ethnicity</i>		
Non-Hispanic black	0.31	0.46
Hispanic	0.31	0.46
Non-Hispanic white	0.37	0.48
<i>Education</i>		
Less than H.S. degree	0.21	0.41
H.S. degree or GED	0.21	0.41
Some college, less than a bachelor's degree	0.32	0.47
Bachelor's degree or higher	0.25	0.43
<i>Income</i>		
Less than \$20,000	0.28	0.45
\$20,000–\$39,999	0.22	0.42
\$40,000–\$79,999	0.29	0.45
\$80,000+	0.21	0.41
<i>Life-course and demographic characteristics</i>		
Age: 20–40 years	0.45	0.50
Age: 41+ years	0.55	0.50
Respondent's sex (female = 1)	0.63	0.48
Current marital status	0.44	0.50
Kids under 18 in school	0.45	0.50
<i>Residential characteristics</i>		
Years lived in the Chicago metro area	32.18	18.66
Respondent owns own home	0.57	0.49
Neighborhood variables ($N = 80$)		
Percent non-Hispanic black	28.96	38.08
Percent Hispanic	32.03	36.17
Percent college educated	19.20	15.98
Median home value	143.70	106.66
Chicago resident	0.63	0.49

group with a college degree and the median home value of owner-occupied homes. The final four variables were obtained using the Census 2000 Summary File-3. Descriptive statistics for all independent variables are presented in Table 1.

ANALYTIC METHODS

I begin by examining the bivariate relationships between the dependent variable and the set of individual-level variables. I do this by calculating the percent of respondents in each category of independent variables that would consider living in a redeveloped neighborhood. In order to compare city versus suburban preferences, I also include the neighborhood-level variable indicating whether the respondent lives in the city of Chicago to determine if there are bivariate differences across city/suburban location.

I use logistic regressions to determine the independent contribution of these variables on a respondent's willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood. Initially, I regress the willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood on the individual-level variables only. I then add the neighborhood-level characteristics to determine whether they have

any effect on considering a redeveloped neighborhood and if controlling for these characteristics might explain or reveal individual-level associations. Because the respondents are clustered in 80 block groups, the effect of these characteristics cannot be assumed to be independent across respondents within the same block group. Therefore, I employ hierarchical generalized linear models to account for this clustering (Raudenbush and Bryk 2002). The probability, P_{ij} , that the i th respondent in the j th neighborhood considers a redeveloped neighborhood is modeled

$$\ln\left(\frac{P_{ij}}{1 - P_{ij}}\right) = \gamma_{00} + \sum_R \gamma_{0r} W_{rj} + \sum_Q \gamma_{q0} X_{qij} + u_{0j} \quad (1)$$

where γ_{00} is the conditional mean willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood; γ_{0r} is the independent effect attributable neighborhood variable W_{rj} ; and γ_{q0} is the independent effect attributable to the individual variable, X_{qij} . The neighborhood-specific residual, u_{0j} , is normally distributed around a mean of zero and variance, τ^2 .

Since one of my primary interests is determining the degree to which residents' consideration of redeveloped neighborhoods differs across the city/suburban divide, I also want to systematically test whether the individual-level effect of homeownership might differ for respondents who live in the city of Chicago versus those who live in the suburbs. Additionally, I want to examine whether racial differences in homeownership and city residence can account for any moderating effects of city residence on homeownership. This requires that cross-level interactions be included; cross-level interactions mean that the individual-level variables (i.e., homeownership and race) be interacted with, or "cross," the neighborhood-level variable indicating residence in the city of Chicago. Specifically,

$$\ln\left(\frac{P_{ij}}{1 - P_{ij}}\right) = \gamma_{00} + \sum_R \gamma_{0r} W_{rj} + \sum_Q \gamma_{q0} X_{qij} + \sum_{qr} \gamma_{qr} X_{qij} W_{rj} + u_{0j} \quad (2)$$

where γ_{qr} is the unique effect of interacting individual-level variable X_{qij} with the neighborhood-level variable W_{rj} . The bivariate relationships and initial logistic regression were examined using Stata 9.2. The multilevel logistic regressions were conducted in HLM 6.04. Sampling weights were applied to all analyses to make the results representative of the Cook County population.

RESULTS

WHO WOULD CONSIDER A REDEVELOPED NEIGHBORHOOD?

Across all respondents, 55 percent indicate that they would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood, but the willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood is not distributed evenly across the population. The bivariate relationships between considering a redeveloped neighborhood and independent variables are presented in Table 2 along with the 95 percent confidence interval for each estimate. From Table 2, we can see pronounced racial, homeownership, and city/suburban differences. **Blacks are more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than either Latinos or whites.** Almost three in four African Americans would consider a redeveloped neighborhood compared to approximately three in five Latinos and less than half of whites, the latter being

Table 2. Proportion (Weighted) of Respondents Who Would Consider a Redeveloped Neighborhood by Individual Characteristics and Chicago Residence

	Mean	95% C.I.
<i>Race/ethnicity</i>		
White	0.45	[0.37–0.53]
Black	0.74	[0.66–0.82]
Latino/a	0.62	[0.50–0.74]
<i>Education</i>		
Less than HS degree	0.66	[0.51–0.80]
H.S. degree or GED	0.47	[0.35–0.59]
Some college, less than a bachelor's degree	0.55	[0.47–0.64]
Bachelor's degree or higher	0.56	[0.46–0.67]
<i>Income</i>		
Less than \$20,000	0.70	[0.60–0.79]
\$20,000–\$39,999	0.62	[0.52–0.73]
\$40,000–\$79,999	0.53	[0.42–0.64]
\$80,000+	0.46	[0.37–0.54]
<i>Age</i>		
20–40	0.64	[0.55–0.73]
41+	0.48	[0.42–0.54]
<i>Sex</i>		
Male	0.59	[0.51–0.66]
Female	0.53	[0.45–0.60]
<i>Currently married</i>		
Not married	0.64	[0.57–0.70]
Married	0.48	[0.40–0.56]
<i>Schoolchildren under 18 in home</i>		
No	0.58	[0.51–0.65]
Yes	0.52	[0.45–0.59]
<i>Homeownership</i>		
Renter	0.72	[0.64–0.79]
Owner	0.47	[0.40–0.54]
<i>Chicago residence</i>		
Suburban resident	0.41	[0.33–0.49]
Chicago resident	0.71	[0.65–0.76]

significantly different from blacks. Only 47 percent of homeowners would consider a redeveloped neighborhood compared to 72 percent of renters, a difference that is statistically significant. Similarly, 41 percent of suburban residents compared to 71 percent of residents from Chicago would consider redeveloped neighborhoods; again the difference is statistically significant.

There are also noticeable education and income trends among residents who would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood but they are in the opposite direction than would be expected if higher class predicted a greater preference for redeveloped neighborhoods. As educational attainment increases, respondents show *less* of a willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood; however, none of these comparisons is statistically significant. Income shows a similar pattern. As income increases, the likelihood of considering a redeveloped neighborhood decreases to the point where the difference between the wealthiest and the poorest respondents is statistically significant.

Finally, there are some differences across respondents with different demographic and life-course characteristics. First, younger respondents are significantly more likely to consider redeveloped neighborhoods than older respondents and married respondents are more likely than unmarried respondents. Surprisingly, however, there is little difference between respondents who have a school-aged child in their home versus respondents without children. Among the former, 52 percent indicate they would consider a redeveloped neighborhood, compared to 58 percent among the latter.

INDEPENDENT EFFECTS ON CONSIDERING A REDEVELOPED NEIGHBORHOOD

Given the substantial amount of research positing that **a distinctive taste guides the preferences for urban neighborhoods among wealthier and more educated residents, the picture painted by these comparisons is surprising**, Table 2 reveals that respondents with the least income and lowest education are just as likely, or possibly more likely, to consider redeveloped neighborhoods and that blacks and Latinos are more likely than whites to consider them. These simple figures might cover more complex relationships among the independent variables that could be revealed by considering their multivariate relationships. Therefore, the results of the logistic regression analysis are presented in Table 3.

The first model of Table 3 includes independent variables that have been associated with previous studies of gentrification. These include race/ethnicity, education, and income as well as controls for the number of years lived in the metropolitan area and whether the respondent is female, married, or has a child at home. Model 1 reveals that there is still a racial divide after controlling for other individual-level characteristics. African Americans are more than three times more likely than whites to consider a redeveloped neighborhood.¹ Also, contrary to the surprisingly small difference in Table 2, respondents with school-age children at home are three-fifths as likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood as respondents without children after controlling for other individual-level characteristics. With the exception of these few significant differences, Model 1 shows that there is broad agreement among respondents to consider a redeveloped neighborhood.

Model 2 in Table 3 presents the results of the hierarchical logistic regression model adding the neighborhood characteristics of the respondent's current neighborhood. In this model, we see that controlling for neighborhood characteristics does little to affect the associations of race and having schoolchildren with considering a redeveloped neighborhood, as both remain significant after inclusion of the neighborhood characteristics. After controlling for neighborhood characteristics, a significant effect of education emerges as respondents with a high school degree are approximately half as likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood as respondents with a bachelor's degree. At the neighborhood level, median home value and Chicago residence predict a respondent's willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood. The effect of median home value is relatively small. A respondent coming from a neighborhood at the 75th percentile of neighborhood home values is only 1.37 times more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than a respondent living in a neighborhood at the 25th percentile. Living in Chicago, on the other hand, doubles the likelihood that

Table 3. Logistic Regression and Hierarchical Logistic Regression Results of Considering Redeveloped Neighborhood on Individual and Neighborhood Characteristics

	Model 1	Model 2	Model 3	Model 4
<i>Race (reference: non-Latino white)</i>				
Non-Latino black (non-Latino white = 0)	1.277***	1.318***	1.167**	3.211***
Latino	0.455	0.316	0.359	0.423
<i>Education (reference: bachelor's or higher)</i>				
Less than HS degree	-0.117	-0.04	-0.048	-0.065
H.S. degree or GED	-0.626	-0.623*	-0.668*	-0.691*
Some college, less than a bachelor's degree	-0.265	-0.178	-0.228	-0.151
<i>Income (reference: \$80,000+)</i>				
Less than \$20,000	0.277	0.227	0.13	0.112
\$20,000-\$39,999	0.196	0.118	-0.037	0.002
\$40,000-\$79,999	-0.035	-0.074	-0.201	-0.108
<i>Life-course and demographic characteristics</i>				
41 or more years old	-0.219	-0.276	-0.347	-0.378
Female	-0.293	-0.321	-0.318	-0.38*
Married	-0.193	-0.271	-0.294	-0.338
Kids under 18 in school	-0.495*	-0.475*	-0.412*	-0.449*
<i>Residential characteristics</i>				
Years lived in the Chicago metro area	-0.011	-0.009	-0.008	-0.007
Respondent owns own home	-0.575	-0.341	-1.158**	-0.859*
<i>Neighborhood characteristics</i>				
Percent non-Latino black ^a		0.001	0.004	0.003
Percent Latino ^a		0.004	0.005	0.004
Percent college educated ^a		-0.016	-0.013	-0.012
Median home value, in \$1,000s ^a		0.004**	0.004**	0.005***
Chicago resident		0.689**	-0.247	-0.704
<i>Interactions</i>				
Chicago resident × Homeowner ^b			1.375**	2.049***
Black × homeowner				-2.17***
Latino × homeowner				-0.464
Black × Chicago resident				-0.619
Latino × Chicago resident				0.77
Intercept	1.331***	0.895*	1.672***	1.384**
N (Level 1)	728	728	728	728
N (Level 2)	n.a.	80	80	80

* $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$.

^aVariables are centered around their grand mean.

^bHomeownership is measured at the individual level and Chicago residence is measured at the neighborhood level.

a respondent would consider a redeveloped neighborhood compared to living in the suburbs.

It is unlikely that the homeownership effect seen in Model 2 is constant across residents living in the city of Chicago and those living in the suburbs. First, residents who already own in the city of Chicago might be more willing to consider another neighborhood in the city. Second, Chicago homeowners could realize a substantial financial reward for purchasing properties in redeveloped neighborhoods by purchasing property appreciating in value while the same appreciation represents an increase in rent for renters. To test the hypothesis that the effect of homeownership depends on whether

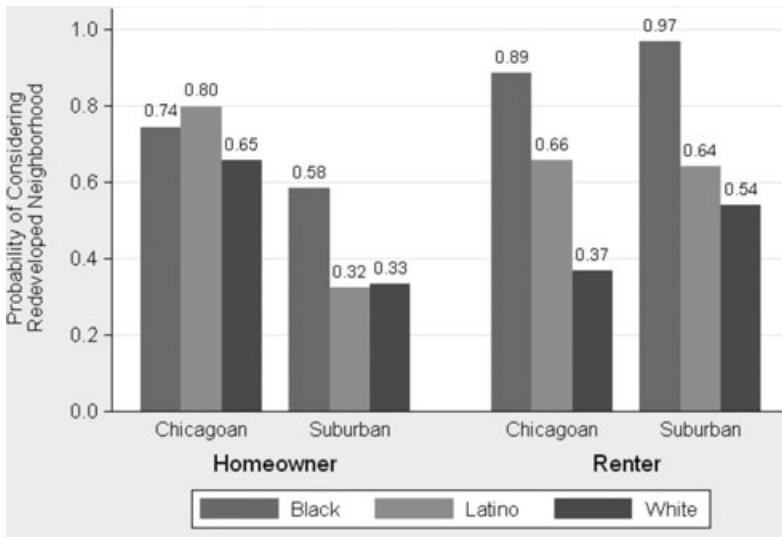


FIG. 2. Predicted probabilities of considering a redeveloped neighborhood for blacks, Latinos, and whites by ownership and residential location.

Note: Predicted probabilities control for individual and neighborhood level characteristics.

the resident lives in the city or suburbs, Model 3 includes a “cross-level” interaction of homeownership with residence in the city of Chicago. **Model 3 reveals that Chicago homeowners do, in fact, have a much higher willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than Chicago renters: Chicago homeowners are almost four times more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than renters who live in the city of Chicago.** Meanwhile, it is apparent from the coefficient for homeownership that suburban owners are three times less likely than suburban renters to consider a redeveloped neighborhood. Notably, however, there is no statistically significant difference between suburban renters and Chicago homeowners in their willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood. Again, the individual-level effects of race, education, and having children remained relatively unchanged.

Finally, because race substantially affects residential patterns in the Chicago metropolitan area, with respect to both who owns homes and where people choose to live, it is necessary to determine whether the interaction between homeownership and city residence (versus suburban residence) can simply be explained by controlling for racial differences in homeownership and city/suburban residence among the respondents. Therefore, in Model 4, I also include two 2-way interactions of race with homeownership and race with Chicago residence. Adding the two additional two-way interactions to the model controls for the possibility that the significant modifying effect homeownership has on Chicago residents considering a redeveloped neighborhood is really an artifact of racial differences in homeownership and urban/suburban residence.² To facilitate the interpretation of the multiple interactions and their implications for understanding preferences for redevelopment, the predicted probabilities across racial groups by urban/suburban residence and homeownership are graphed in Figure 2 after controlling for other independent variables.

The results reveal that the pronounced urban/suburban divide among homeowners found in Model 3 cannot be attributed to racial differences in either homeownership or residence in the city of Chicago. Instead, Figure 2 shows that the urban/suburban line still divides Chicago homeowners. For each racial group, Chicago homeowners have higher probabilities of considering a redeveloped neighborhood than their suburban counterparts of the same race,³ and notably, there are almost no racial differences among Chicago homeowners. The persistence with which residential preferences have been found to differ across race and ethnicity, particularly between blacks and whites, makes it remarkable to find such similar preferences among all three racial/ethnic groups. This is not true among suburban homeowners; African Americans have a significantly higher probability of considering a redeveloped neighborhood than white suburban homeowners ($p < 0.05$) and moderately higher probability than Latino suburban homeowners ($p = 0.10$). Thus, among homeowners, considering a redeveloped neighborhood is largely determined by whether the respondent lives in Chicago or one of the surrounding suburbs; however, the difference between urban and suburban residence is more pronounced for whites and Latinos than it is for blacks.

Among renters, there are substantial racial differences that are much stronger than differences that are present between urban and suburban residents. **African-American renters have the highest probability of considering a redeveloped neighborhood while white renters have the lowest and Latino renters are between these two extremes.** Among blacks and whites, suburban renters are more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than Chicago renters. For Latinos, there is virtually no difference between urban and suburban renters.

Controlling for the additional interactions of race with homeownership and Chicago residence does not account for educational difference in a respondent's willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood. Respondents with a high school degree are still half as likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood compared to those with at least a bachelor's degree or higher, meaning that class still matters, even after accounting for the roles of homeownership, race, and urban residence. Also, the presence of a child in school living at home remains significant and negative for considering a redeveloped neighborhood and a small, but statistically significant, gender effect emerges indicating that women are 1.5 times less likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than men.

In summary, based on the results in Table 3, the patterns of who would consider a redeveloped neighborhood differ whether one considers homeowners or renters. **Among homeowners, the starkest difference is between Chicago and suburban residents. Chicago homeowners are more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than suburban homeowners.** Racial/ethnic differences, particularly between whites and Latinos, are not as strong as the urban/suburban divide. **Among renters, on the other hand, racial patterns are much more profound. African Americans are much more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than whites and Latinos' preferences fall in between.** To the degree that there are urban/suburban differences in the willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood, they are in the reverse direction from owners as suburban renters are generally more likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than Chicago renters.

INFLUENCE OF RESPONDENT AGE ON CONSIDERING A REDEVELOPED NEIGHBORHOOD

The final dimension along which the results in Table 3 are examined is whether the effects differ by the age of respondents. Although the effect of age did not attain an effect statistically significant from zero in Table 3, it is possible that age moderates the other significant effects in the model. **In other words, it is possible that the significant effects found in Table 3 might only be found among older adults while there could be minimal differences among younger adults.** To examine this question, I stratify the sample into two age categories, respondents 40 years old and younger and respondents over 40 years old, and repeat Model 4 from Table 3 for these two subsamples.⁴ The results of these models are reported in Table 4.

The directions of associations reported in Table 4 are similar for younger and older respondents, though they tend to have a larger magnitude and thus lead to greater confidence in the estimates for older respondents. This was true for most of the characteristics that contributed to the interactions graphed in Figure 2, the positive main effect of race for blacks compared to whites, the interaction of being black with homeownership, and the Chicago resident interaction with homeownership. The negative association of the main effect of homeownership was not statistically significant in either model reported in Table 4, though the magnitude of this association was greater for younger respondents. Finding a higher magnitude for younger respondents is unsurprising for the effect of homeownership because younger respondents are more likely to have purchased a house that they plan to settle in while older respondents might be looking to move out of their homes after adult children have moved out.

One notable exception to the general similarities of associations between younger and older respondents is the association between educational attainment and the willingness to consider a redeveloped neighborhood. While a respondent with a bachelor's degree is nearly three times as likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood among older respondents, there is almost no association among younger respondents. **This would suggest that the uniqueness of preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods among more socially and economically privileged residents is largely confined to older metropolitan residents.** Other effects that do not follow the same overall pattern include gender and marriage. Younger women are significantly less likely to consider a redeveloped neighborhood than younger men, though the gender effect is in the same direction among older women. An effect of marriage is revealed in the model among older respondents: older married respondents are significantly less likely than nonmarried older respondents to consider a redeveloped neighborhood.

WHY WOULD RESIDENTS CONSIDER MOVING TO A REDEVELOPED NEIGHBORHOOD?

Now, I turn my attention to why residents would consider redeveloped neighborhoods. After the respondents answered that they would consider a redeveloped neighborhood, they were asked why they would consider a redeveloped neighborhood and given 10 response categories plus the option to specify another reason. These 10 reasons are: close

Table 4. Hierarchical Logistic Regression Results of Considering a Redeveloped Neighborhood on Individual and Neighborhood Characteristics, by Age

	21–40	41 and Older
<i>Race (reference: non-Latino white)</i>		
Non-Latino black (non-Latino white = 0)	2.072	4.212***
Latino	−0.734	1.515
<i>Education (reference: bachelor's or higher)</i>		
Less than HS degree	0.065	−0.516
H.S. degree or GED	−0.209	−1.023**
Some college, less than a bachelor's degree	−0.026	−0.348
<i>Income (reference: \$80,000+)</i>		
Less than \$20,000	0.891	−0.331
\$20,000–\$39,999	0.263	−0.452
\$40,000–\$79,999	0.128	−0.379
<i>Life-course and demographic characteristics</i>		
Female	−0.735*	−0.262
Married	0.242	−0.92**
Kids under 18 in school	−0.488	−0.229
<i>Residential characteristics</i>		
Years lived in the Chicago metro area	−0.018	0.002
Respondent owns own home	−0.998	−0.467
<i>Neighborhood characteristics</i>		
Percent non-Latino black ^a	0.011	−0.004
Percent Latino ^a	0.01	−0.001
Percent college educated ^a	−0.006	−0.02
Median home value, in \$1,000s ^a	0.005	0.005**
Chicago resident	−0.78	−0.544
<i>Interactions</i>		
Chicago resident × homeowner ^b	1.071	2.449***
Black × homeowner	−1.123	−2.951***
Latino × homeowner	−0.103	−0.538
Black × Chicago resident	−0.097	−0.879
Latino × Chicago resident	0.895	1.257
Intercept	1.843*	0.507
N (Level 1)	331	397
N (Level 2)	78	79

* $p < 0.05$; ** $p < 0.01$; *** $p < 0.001$.

^aVariables are centered around their grand mean.

^bHomeownership is measured at the individual level and Chicago residence is measured at the neighborhood level.

to work, close to cultural and recreational activities, close to shopping, housing more affordable, high quality of housing, reduced property taxes, racial and ethnic mix, want to see people I know on the street, city services will be better, and more job opportunities. Table 5 reports the top three reasons endorsed by respondents in each of the categories defined by racial/ethnic, urban/suburban, and housing tenure categories depicted in Figure 2. Although the small numbers in many categories make it impossible to draw definitive conclusions, the trends in responses are nevertheless instructive.

Table 5 shows the diversity of reasons why different groups of residents would consider redeveloped neighborhoods. Within the overall diversity of reasons, some patterns do emerge. First, there is a strong consensus within racial/ethnic groups for some of the

Table 5. Top Three Reasons Respondents Would Consider Redeveloped Neighborhoods by Racial/Ethnic, Urban/Suburban, and Housing Tenure Categories

Owners				Renters			
Chicago		Suburban		Chicago		Suburban	
<i>White (N = 34)</i>		<i>White (N = 45)</i>		<i>White (N = 19)</i>		<i>White (N = 13)</i>	
Close shopping	67.6	Close activities	73.3	Close work	57.9	Close work	46.2
Quality housing	64.7	Close work	46.7	Close activities	57.9	Close activities	46.2
Close activities	58.8	Quality housing	35.6	Housing affordable	57.9	Quality housing	46.2
						Job opportunities	46.2
<i>Black (N = 54)</i>		<i>Black (N = 19)</i>		<i>Black (N = 82)</i>		<i>Black (N = 19)</i>	
City services	59.3	Close activities	63.2	Housing affordable	51.2	Quality housing	57.9
Racial mix	48.1	Close shopping	57.9	City services	51.2	Housing affordable	36.8
Quality housing	46.3	Racial mix	47.4	Racial mix	47.6	City services	36.8
		City services	47.4			Racial mix	36.8
<i>Latino/a (N = 47)</i>		<i>Latino/a (N = 8)</i>		<i>Latino/a (N = 93)</i>		<i>Latino/a (N = 10)</i>	
Job opportunities	48.9	Close activities	62.5	Close work	49.5	Housing affordable	80.0
Housing affordable	42.6	Close work	50.0	City services	49.5	Reduced taxes	60.0
Close work	40.4	Quality housing	50.0	Job opportunities	43.0	Close work	60.0
		Reduced taxes	50.0				
		City services	50.0				
		Job opportunities	50.0				

reasons. For example, blacks in all four categories of homeownership and location cite improved city services and the racial/ethnic mix as two of the top three reasons they would consider a redeveloped neighborhood. Being close to work was one of the top three reasons for all four categories of both whites and Latinos who would consider redeveloped neighborhoods. In addition, quality of housing was cited as one of the top three reasons for all four categories of whites and job opportunities was cited by three of the four categories of Latinos (suburban renters are the exception). **At the same time, other patterns emerged that bridged racial groups: the top reason cited by black, white, and Latino suburban homeowners alike was being close to cultural and recreational activities** and housing affordability was frequently cited by renters as a reason that they would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood.

Beyond these patterns, it is also instructive to look at differences among Chicago homeowners. Recall from Figure 2 the remarkable similarity in the marginal probabilities of white, black, and Latino/a Chicago homeowners to consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood. Such racial similarities in residential preferences are a rarity (Charles 2003); however, examining the reasons why Chicago homeowners would consider redeveloped neighborhoods reveals substantial racial differences. **White Chicago homeowners most frequently reported “cultural” reasons—being close to shopping (68 percent), quality housing (65 percent), and being close to activities (59 percent)—that are traditionally cited by demand-side scholars as reasons residents consider redeveloping or gentrifying neighborhoods.** These cultural reasons are not among those cited by black and Latino Chicago homeowners. Instead, black Chicago homeowners indicated improved city services as by far the most frequent reason (59 percent) to consider a redeveloped neighborhood while Latinos point to the largely financial reasons of job opportunities (49 percent), affordable housing (43 percent), and being close to work (40 percent). Therefore, while whites, blacks, and Latino homeowners in Chicago had similar levels of preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods (controlling for other social and economic characteristics), they had very different reasons for doing so and, therefore, might be attracted to different neighborhoods within the city.

DISCUSSION AND CONCLUSIONS

As urban redevelopment policies are likely to expand, it is important for researchers and policy-makers to consider the residential preferences of all residents, not just those already living in redeveloped, or redeveloping, neighborhoods. In this paper, I addressed this shortcoming by examining who would consider moving to a redeveloped neighborhood in a representative sample of residents from the Chicago metropolitan area. I find that preferences are not unique among the middle-class, but that preferences are largely shaped by the socioeconomic and demographic characteristics of residents. I discuss these patterns in more detail below and conclude by considering the implications and limitations of this analysis to inform the ways that redevelopment might influence metropolitan residential patterns.

PREFERENCE PATTERNS AMONG HOMEOWNERS AND RENTERS

This analysis reveals two different patterns of preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods, one among homeowners and the second among renters. Homeowners’

preferences are largely divided by their current location and relatively similar across race: Chicago homeowners are likely to consider redeveloped neighborhoods while suburban homeowners are not. This is especially true for white and Latino homeowners where differences are much starker than among African-American homeowners. Differences in renters' preferences largely fall along racial lines. **African-American renters, in both Chicago and surrounding suburbs, are far more likely than their white counterparts to consider a redeveloped neighborhood**, while Latinos are somewhere in between. This analysis reveals that the desire for redeveloped neighborhoods might not be limited to urban renters desiring reinvestment as the previous literature has explored (e.g., Freeman 2006), but might also attract suburban African-American and Latino renters from the suburbs as well.

These conclusions expand the current literature on the role of redevelopment on the negotiation of racial and class identities. While previous research is largely limited to studying the intersection of race and class in already-redeveloping neighborhoods, I find that even the preferences to move into redeveloping neighborhoods might point to the important intersection of racial and class identity in the formation of residential preferences. This supports recent work emphasizing **residential preferences as one way that middle-class blacks mobilize or prioritize their middle-class identities** (Lacy 2007). For black homeowners, particularly those living in Chicago, considering a redeveloped neighborhood is more strongly characterized by their similarity to homeowners of other races than to black renters; among renters, there are stark racial differences in considering a redeveloped neighborhood. However, the fact that black Chicago homeowners would consider redeveloped neighborhoods for different reasons than white and Latino Chicago homeowners might lead them to prefer different neighborhoods and this possibility should be considered in future research.

AGE-SPECIFIC CLASS EFFECT ON PREFERENCES

In addition to differences in homeownership, age also influences patterns of respondents' willingness to consider redeveloped neighborhoods, especially with respect to social class. **Higher educational attainment is associated with preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods among older respondents; and, although educational attainment only measures a particular dimension of social class, this result lends some validity to arguments highlighting middle-class preferences as a catalyst to redevelopment and gentrification** (Jager 1986; Ley 1980, 1996; Zukin 1982). Finding this effect of education exclusively among older respondents could be the result of either cohort adaptation in residential preferences or age-specific residential preferences. The former would suggest that the cultural distinction of **acquiring a preference for redeveloping urban neighborhoods has become less distinguishing as preferences for these neighborhoods have been adopted by younger generations as desirable places to live across social class categories**. Seen in this light, redeveloped neighborhoods might be considered a contested field of cultural production (Bourdieu 1984) that, **over time, have lost their distinguishing character as they become more widely adopted as a residential destination among all classes**. Alternatively, the emergence of educational attainment as a predictor of considering a redeveloped neighborhood at older ages might indicate that the education itself plays a role in modifying preferences for redeveloping neighborhoods across the life-course. Because this study examines only a single point in time, I cannot distinguish the relative

validity of these two theories, though future research should endeavor to do so because distinguishing the two has important implications for understanding the way that preferences for redevelopment are formed.

INFLUENCE OF REDEVELOPMENT ON METROPOLITAN RESIDENTIAL DYNAMICS

While redevelopment policies have often been supported by claims that it would attract middle-class homeowners—along with their tax dollars—“back to the city” and integrate cities racially and economically, the results of this analysis provide mixed support for this proposition. Critics of redevelopment policies argue that redevelopment policies favor urban property owners who stand to gain financially, but will have little effect on attracting residents from elsewhere to urban neighborhoods (Smith 1996). This criticism seems to be supported by the evidence presented here since Chicago homeowners are among the most likely to consider redeveloped neighborhoods. However, what these critics fail to examine, largely because they focus only on existing residents of redeveloping neighborhoods, is the fact that an overwhelming proportion of African-American renters and a substantial number of Latino renters would find redeveloped neighborhoods desirable. Therefore, to the extent that local, state, and federal agencies honor their commitments to develop truly mixed-income housing with affordable rental units, then redevelopment might help foster inclusive and economically diverse neighborhoods.

At the same time, it is unclear what impact redevelopment might have on overall metropolitan patterns of residential segregation. **Attracting whites “back to the city” to reduce levels of metropolitan racial segregation and isolation is one of the reasons that redevelopment is advocated by its proponents (Massey 2002).** While there are some groups of whites with relatively high adjusted probabilities of considering redeveloped neighborhoods, most notably Chicago homeowners, dynamic models of residential preferences demonstrate that where people move from is equally important as knowing where they will consider moving to (Schelling 1971). If whites who would consider moving to redeveloped neighborhoods are moving from neighborhoods with minority populations that are higher than average for the typical metropolitan white household (as is likely for white Chicago homeowners), then redevelopment would have a minimal impact on overall patterns of racial segregation. Additionally, neither of these two perspectives adequately considers the reasons that different groups would move to redeveloped neighborhoods. Among African Americans, the most important reasons are city services and racial and ethnic mix while it is typically only among suburban owners that there is a “cultural” draw to redeveloped neighborhoods. Theories of redevelopment that do not account for the different reasons that people consider redeveloped neighborhoods, and the policies that build on them, could perpetuate rather than ameliorate inequality and segregation by race or class.

Considering these results, it is important to note that the scope of these conclusions is limited by the fact that I only investigate whether a respondent would consider any redeveloped neighborhood in the city of Chicago. With dynamic effects in mind, it is important to note that examining whether a respondent would consider any redeveloped neighborhood in the city of Chicago might gloss over preferences that reveal more nuanced distinctions of preferences among residents. In particular, I do not examine *which* redeveloped neighborhoods residents would consider. For example, even among Chicago

homeowners where we see relative uniformity across African Americans, Latinos, and whites to consider a redeveloped neighborhood, there might be racial differences in the particular neighborhoods respondents would consider, particularly since each tends to desire redeveloping neighborhoods for different reasons. These differences could easily lead to each group choosing substantially different neighborhoods that would reinforce, rather than reduce, current segregation. Future studies should consider the potential dynamic effects of studying where residents live and to which redeveloped neighborhoods they would consider moving in order to more completely understand how preferences might attenuate or perpetuate racial residential segregation.

Second, this analysis is also limited in that I do not consider the strength of preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods relative to other types of neighborhoods. Presumably, any respondent who would consider a redeveloped neighborhood—no matter how strongly or weakly they would consider it—responded affirmatively when asked if they would consider a redeveloped neighborhood. Determining the relative strength of preferences for redeveloped neighborhoods compared to other types of neighborhoods is important for predicting the potential impact of redevelopment on the metropolitan residential patterns. In addition, the choice to use the term “redevelop” neutralizes the political, cultural, and racial context of change in many neighborhoods. While being conscious of the fact that survey measures have the potential to “abstract each class from its . . . relations of power and of struggle for power” (Bourdieu, 1984, p. 245), I believe using the neutral term is warranted in order to measure preferences of the general population, particularly in an effort to measure preferences of those generally ignored by policy-makers and researchers.

Despite these limitations, this study reveals the problems of drawing conclusions about residential redevelopment preferences by extrapolating **only from the behavior of residents already living in redeveloping neighborhoods**. This study examined preferences among a representative sample of metropolitan residents and the results suggest that preference patterns depend on multiple factors, among the most important being whether the resident is a homeowner or renter: current location affects preferences among homeowners while race does among renters. These conclusions imply that researchers and policy-makers must reassess the conventional wisdom surrounding residential redevelopment preferences and must be more cognizant of the multiple and overlapping factors that could contribute to residential patterns in redeveloping neighborhoods. Furthermore, being attentive to the reasons that different groups would consider redeveloped neighborhoods could provide avenues through which truly inclusive redevelopment policies can be developed. Focusing on marketing and affirmative promotion based on the priorities of different groups in conjunction with sufficient economic incentives to provide affordable rental housing can help foster mixed-income redevelopment. Without accounting for such differences, it is unlikely that redevelopment policies will yield residential economic investment without perpetuating racial and economic segregation.

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Notes

¹ Odds are obtained by exponentiating the logistic coefficient, that is, $\exp\{1.277\} = 3.387$.

² An alternative hypothesis, that effect of urban homeownership might differ for whites when compared to black and Latinos was tested by adding a three-way interaction effect including race, homeownership, and Chicago residence. This interaction was not significant for either blacks or Latinos.

³ For whites and Latinos, this difference was highly significant ($p < 0.001$) using multivariate hypothesis tests in HLM while the difference was borderline significant for blacks ($p = 0.12$).

⁴ Alternative categorizations of age were modeled and results examined to detect whether the conclusions were sensitive to the particular categorization of age used. These alternative specifications yielded substantively similar results to those presented.

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Reevaluando las Preferencias sobre la Renovación Urbana Residencial (Michael D.M. Bader)

Resumen

Aunque los estudiosos plantean que la renovación urbana y el aburguesamiento ("gentrificación") son, en gran medida, el resultado de preferencias especiales de los residentes de clase media que se mudan a barrios devastados por el abandono de décadas, casi toda la evidencia para esta teoría parte de la conducta de residentes ya instalados en los barrios renovados. En este artículo se plantea que para comprender las consecuencias de la renovación urbana, especialmente las políticas urbanas a favor de la misma, se precisa medir las preferencias de la población en general. A partir de una muestra representativa de personas adultas del área metropolitana de Chicago, encontramos que las personas propietarias de casas y quienes las alquilan difieren en términos de sus preferencias con respecto a los barrios renovados: residir en la ciudad o en los suburbios es más importante para los propietarios mientras que la composición racial es un factor mucho más relevante para los inquilinos. Esta reevaluación de los patrones de preferencia indica que se deben considerar las implicaciones a largo plazo del debate sobre las políticas de renovación urbana entre investigadores y hacedores de política, en particular, porque dichas políticas pueden quedarse cortas con respecto a las metas originales de atraer inversión y reducir la segregación racial.